Memoirs by

Harry S. Truman

VOLUME

TWO

YEARS OF TRIAL AND HOPE

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PREFACE

I have often thought in reading the history of our country how much is lost to us because so few of our Presidents have told their own stories. It would have been helpful for us to know more of what was in their minds and what impelled them to do what they did.

The presidency of the United States carries with it a responsibility so personal as to be without parallel.

Very few are ever authorized to speak for the President. No one can make decisions for him. No one can know all the processes and stages of his thinking in making important decisions. Even those closest to him, even members of his immediate family, never know all the reasons why he does certain things and why he comes to certain conclusions. To be President of the United States is to be lonely, very lonely at times of great decisions.

Unfortunately some of our Presidents were prevented from telling all the facts of their administrations because they died in office. Some were physically spent on leaving the White House and could not have undertaken to write even if they had wanted to. Some were embittered by the experience and did not care about living it again in telling about it.

As for myself, I should like to record, before it is too late, as much of the story of my occupancy of the White House as I am able to tell. The events, as I saw them and as I put them down here, I hope may prove helpful in informing some people and in setting others straight on the facts.

No one who has lived through more than seven and a half years as

President of the United States in the midst of one world crisis after another can possibly remember every detail of all that happened. For the last two and a half years I have checked my memory against my personal papers, memoranda, and letters and with some of the persons who were present when certain decisions were made, seeking to recapture and record accurately the significant events of my administration.

I have tried to refrain from hindsight and afterthoughts. Any schoolboy's afterthought is worth more than the forethought of the greatest statesman. What I have written here is based upon the circumstances and the facts and my thinking at the time I made the decisions, and not what they might have been as a result of later developments.

That part of the manuscript which could not be physically included in the two volumes of the memoirs, I shall turn over to the Library in Independence, Missouri, where it will be made available to scholars and students of history.

For reasons of national security and out of consideration for some people still alive, I have omitted certain material. Some of this material cannot be made available for many years, perhaps for many generations.

In spite of the turmoil and pressure of critical events during the years I was President, the one purpose that dominated me in everything I thought and did was to prevent a third world war. One of the events that has cast a shadow over our lives and the lives of peoples everywhere has been termed, inaccurately, the "cold war."

What we have been living through is, in fact, a period of nationalistic, social, and economic tensions. These tensions were in part brought about by shattered nations trying to recover from the war and by peoples in many places awakening to their right to freedom. More than half of the world's population was subject for centuries to foreign domination and economic slavery. The repercussions of the American and French revolutions are just now being felt all around the world.

This was a natural development of events, and the United States did all it could to help and encourage nations and peoples to recovery and to independence.

Unhappily, one imperialistic nation, Soviet Russia, sought to take advantage of this world situation. It was for this reason, only, that we had to make sure of our military strength. We are not a militaristic nation, but we had to meet the world situation with which we were faced.

We knew that there could be no lasting peace so long as there were large populations in the world living under primitive conditions and suffering from starvation, disease, and denial of the advantages of modern science and industry.

There is enough in the world for everyone to have plenty to live on happily and to be at peace with his neighbors.

I believe, as I said on January 15, 1953, in my last address to the American people before leaving the White House: "We have averted World War III up to now, and we may have already succeeded in establishing conditions which can keep that war from happening as far ahead as man can see."

H. S. T.

Independence, Missouri

CHAPTER 23

On July 31 General MacArthur undertook the flying trip to Formosa that he had discussed with General Collins and General Vandenberg when they had visited him in Tokyo.

Our policy toward Formosa had been one of the topics discussed in Washington on July 27 at a meeting of the National Security Council. There was a recommendation from the Joint Chiefs before the Council that we grant all-out aid to the Chinese Nationalists so as to enable them to defend themselves against a possible Communist attack on the island. Many other phases of the situation were discussed. I approved three specific proposals: the granting of extensive military aid to Nationalist China; a military survey by MacArthur's headquarters of the requirements of Chiang Kai-shek's forces; and the plan to carry out reconnaissance flights along the China coast to determine the imminence of attacks against Formosa.

These decisions were communicated to General MacArthur by the Joint Chiefs of Staff on August 3, and on the same day I also informed him that I was sending Averell Harriman to Tokyo at once to discuss the Far Eastern political situation with him. Harriman's report to me on his meetings and conversations follows. (For reasons of brevity and for military security I have omitted portions of the Harriman memorandum.)

General MacArthur met me at Haneda Airport on our arrival at 9:45 A.M., August 6, 1950. He drove me to the guest house at the Embassy. As the window between the driver and his aide, and ourselves, was open, our conversation was general.

He described the satisfactory political development in Japan since my last visit. He spoke of the great quality of the Japanese; his desire to work, the satisfaction of the Japanese in work, his respect for the dignity of work. He

compared it unfavorably to the desire in the United States for more luxury and less work.

He considered Communist infiltration into Japanese life was in no sense a threat as Communist ideas did not appeal to the Japanese, but, more importantly, it had the Russian label. The Japanese both feared and hated the Russians.

The reaction among the Japanese to our action in Korea was one of relief, as they interpreted it to mean that we would vigorously defend them against Russian invasion. They were not disturbed by our temporary difficulties, since they understood the military difficulties caused by the surprise attack. Their pride had been aroused by "his" confidence in them, shown by the withdrawal of most of the American troops. He could withdraw them all without any danger of disorder in Japan. . . .

He arranged for me and the officers with me to attend the morning briefing at 10:30 at Headquarters, and that I should call on him at his office at 11:30.

I had a 2½ hour talk with MacArthur in the morning: lunch with him and Mrs. MacArthur for the entire party, and then a further two-hour talk from 5:30 to 7:30 in the afternoon.

On Tuesday morning, after my return from Korea, we had a further four-hour talk before my departure.

The first 2½ hours included a military discussion at which Generals Ridgway and Norstad participated. General Almond also was present.

I will not attempt to divide the conversations chronologically, but largely by subject.

Our first talk on Sunday morning covered the military situation as he saw it.

I explained to him that the President had asked me to tell him that he wanted to know what MacArthur wanted, and was prepared to support him as fully as possible. I asked MacArthur whether he had any doubts about the wisdom of the Korean decision. He replied, "absolutely none." The President's statement was magnificent. It was an historic decision which would save the world from communist domination, and would be so recorded in history. The commitment of our ground forces was essential, and victory must be attained rapidly.

MacArthur described his firm conviction that the North Korean forces must be destroyed as early as possible and could not wait for a slow build-up. He emphasized the political and military dangers of such a course; the discouragement that would come among the United Nations including the United States; the effect on Oriental peoples as well as on the Chinese Communists and the Russians. He feared that Russia and the Chinese Communists would be able to greatly strengthen the North Korean forces and that time was of the essence, or grave difficulties, if not disaster, were ahead. . . .

He did not believe that the Russians had any present intention of intervening directly, or becoming involved in a general war. He believed the same was true of the Chinese Communists. The Russians had organized and equipped the North Koreans, and had supplied some of the trained personnel from racial Koreans of the Soviet Union who had fought in the Red Army forces. The Chinese Communists had cooperated in the transfer of soldiers who had fought with the Chinese Communist forces in Manchuria. These had not come over as units, but had been released in Manchuria, and

reorganized into North Korean forces after they had been transported to North Korea. Their leadership was vigorous. A number of Russian officers were acting as observers but undoubtedly giving direction. Their tactics had been skillful, and they were as capable and tough as any army in his military experience.

He described the difference between the attitude towards death of Westerners and Orientals. We hate to die; only face danger out of a sense of duty and through moral issues; whereas with Orientals, life begins with death. They die quietly, "folding their arms as a dove folding his wings, relaxing, and dying."

MacArthur could not see why we could not quickly recruit experienced combat non-commissioned officers, so badly needed, among the many who had served in the last war. He thought we could get the fast ships and airplanes to transport the needed troops rapidly. To think that we might fail in this, he said, "makes me feel sick in my stomach." (Both of these things he said on Tuesday morning.)

MacArthur wants maximum UN ground forces possible, as many as 30,000 or 40,000. He will take battalions (1,000 men) just as fast as they can come, with only their small arms. Actually, heavier artillery would be welcome, but the need is so great that he would take them with their small arms only. He feels the British should send a brigade from Hong Kong or Malaya; thinks it could be replaced from the United Kingdom. The French could send some forces from Indochina. A brigade from Pakistan and Turkey would be most welcome. Canada should send some troops. . . . Although he recognized the value of Eastern troops, he wasn't sure the Philippines could spare anything just now.

He has no doubts of the political outcome, once there is victory. Victory is a strong magnet in the East, and the Koreans want their freedom. When Syngman Rhee's government is reestablished in Seoul, the UN-supervised elections can be held within two months, and he has no doubt of an overwhelming victory for the non-communist parties. The North Koreans will also vote for a non-communist government when they are sure of no Russian or communist intervention. He said there was no need to change the Constitution, which now provides for 100 seats for the North. Korea can become a strong influence in stabilizing the non-communist movement in the East.

MacArthur thinks highly of Ambassador Muccio. He said they worked together fully and effectively.

In my first talk with MacArthur, I told him the President wanted me to tell him he must not permit Chiang to be the cause of starting a war with the Chinese communists on the mainland, the effect of which might drag us into a world war. He answered that he would, as a soldier, obey any orders that he received from the President. He said that he had discussed only military matters with the Generalissimo on his trip to Formosa. He had refused to discuss any political subjects whenever the Generalissimo attempted to do so. The Generalissimo had offered him command of the Chinese National troops. MacArthur had replied that that was not appropriate, but that he would be willing to give military advice if requested by the Generalissimo to do so . . .

For reasons which are rather difficult to explain, I did not feel that we came to a full agreement on the way we believed things should be handled on Formosa and with the Generalissimo. He accepted the President's position

and will act accordingly, but without full conviction. He has a strange idea that we should back anybody who will fight communism, even though he could not give an argument why the Generalissimo's fighting communists would be a contribution towards the effective dealing with the communists in China. I pointed out to him the basic conflict of interest between the U.S. and the Generalissimo's position as to the future of Formosa, namely, the preventing of Formosa's falling into hostile hands. Perhaps the best way would be through the medium of the UN to establish an independent government. Chiang, on the other hand, had only the burning ambition to use Formosa as a stepping-stone for his re-entry to the mainland. MacArthur recognized that this ambition could not be fulfilled, and yet thought it might be a good idea to let him land and get rid of him that way. He did not seem to consider the liability that our support of Chiang on such a move would be to us in the East. I explained in great detail why Chiang was a liability, and the great danger of a split in the unity of the United Nations on the Chinese-Communist-Formosa policies; the attitude of the British, Nehru and such countries as Norway, who, although stalwart in their determination to resist Russian aggression, did not want to stir up trouble elsewhere. I pointed out the great importance of maintaining UN unity among the friendly countries, and the complications that might result from any mis-steps in dealing with China and Formosa.

MacArthur would never recognize the Chinese Communists, even to the use of the veto in seating the Communists. He believes it would only strengthen the prestige of Mao Tse-tung's government in China and destroy what he considers should be our objective; the splitting of the present supporters of Mao Tse-tung and the developing of strengthened resistance movements. He does not believe the Chinese want to come under Russian domination. They have historically opposed invasion from the North. We should be more aggressive than we have been so far as creating stronger dissension within China. . . .

I emphasized the importance of getting evidence on the participation of the Chinese Communists in supporting the North Korean attack and present operations. There will be considerable support in seating the Chinese Communists at the next meeting of the Assembly. I explained that if we could obtain real evidence of direct support for the North Koreans, this might be the reason by which we could prevent the seating of the Communists on the moral issue involved.

In all, I cannot say that he recognizes fully the difficulties, both within the world and within the East, of whatever moves we make within China in our position with the Generalissimo in Formosa. He believes that our policies undermine the Generalissimo. He has confidence that he can get the Generalissimo to do whatever he is asked to undertake; is prepared to deal with the political problems, but will conscientiously deal only with the military side, unless he is given further orders from the President. . . .

He is satisfied the Chinese Communists will not attempt an invasion of Formosa at the present time. His intelligence and photographs show no undue concentration of forces, although they are building airstrips. He is convinced that the 7th Fleet plus the air jets from the Philippines and Okinawa, B-29's and other aircraft at his disposal, can destroy any attempt which may be made. He believes that the Chinese National troops can be organized to fight effectively and destroy any Communist troops which might

get through. Should the Chinese Communists be so foolhardy as to make such an attempt, it would be the bloodiest victory in Far Eastern history, and would strengthen favorably morale in the East. . . .

He spoke about the problem of the island of Quemoy, close to the mainland. The Generalissimo claims to have 70,000 men there which is important from the standpoint of eventually landing on the mainland, but has no value to the U.S. The Generalissimo considers Formosa part of China. MacArthur didn't see any evidence of a desire for independence so far, even among the Formosans he talked to, but perhaps that was natural at this stage. There were no soldiers on the streets and no curfew; no evidence to support the pessimistic reports that had come from the State Department. . . .

MacArthur feels that we have not improved our position by kicking Chiang around, and hoped that the President would do something to relieve the strain that existed between the State Department and the Generalissimo. He suggested the President might reiterate his previous statements by threatening the Chinese Communists that he would withdraw the inhibition to attack the airfields on the mainland if the Chinese continued to do this work, or to build up their positions. I told him that if he wanted to make that recommendation to the President it was up to him, but I assured him that I would strongly recommended to the President against his doing so. I emphasized the overpowering importance of UN unity and that this would only give further trouble and give the Russians a chance to develop an entering wedge.

MacArthur strongly supports the development of strong forces in Europe, and further believes we should be more vigorous in strengthening the military forces to resist Communism in the East. He believes the Chinese Communists will not move their own troops south, but will train Indochinese and Burmese, equip them, and attempt to create by infiltration and support by well-equipped local Communist troops dissension, with the eventual hope of taking over these areas. Nehru, he believes, is concerned over the threat of communism, but is acting wrongly in thinking he will get anywhere by appeasement. "We should fight the communists every place—fight them like hell!" He considers the Truman Doctrine "great." It should be carried out more vigorously. We should organize economic assistance in the East as we have been doing in the Marshall Plan in Europe. Large sums are not required. This assistance should be capably directed. We should see that it gets to the people and corruption is avoided.

When he saw me off at the airport, he said loudly so that all could hear, "the only fault of your trip was that it was too short."

Attached to Harriman's personal report was a memorandum of the military discussion as prepared by General Ridgway. This was a summary of a two-and-a-half-hour presentation in which General MacArthur had stated his need for additional combat ground forces, both American and Allied.

I had asked Harriman to visit MacArthur so that the general might be given a firsthand account of the political planning in Washington. There had been several of our top military leaders who had visited Tokyo and had discussed the strategy of the Far Eastern situation with

MacArthur, but Harriman, who, of all my advisers, had the best knowledge of the economic recovery program, was particularly qualified to pass to MacArthur the views I held with regard to our over-all foreign policy.

General MacArthur's visit to Formosa on July 31 had raised much speculation in the world press. Chiang Kai-shek's aides let it be known that the Far East commander was in fullest agreement with their chief on the course of action to be taken. The implication was—and quite a few of our newspapers said so—that MacArthur rejected my policy of neutralizing Formosa and that he favored a more aggressive method. After Harriman explained the administration's policy to MacArthur, he had said that he would accept it as a good soldier. I was reassured. I told the press that the general and I saw eye to eye on Formosa policy.

To make doubly sure, on August 14 the Joint Chiefs of Staff informed General MacArthur, with my approval, that the intent of the directive to him to defend Formosa was to limit United States action there to such support operations as would be practicable without committing any forces to the island itself. No commitments were to be made to the National Government for the basing of fighter squadrons on Formosa, and no United States forces of any kind were to be based ashore on Formosa except with the specific approval of the Joint Chiefs of Staff.

I assumed that this would be the last of it and that General MacArthur would accept the Formosa policy laid down by his Commander in Chief. But I was mistaken. Before the month ended—on August 26—the White House Press Room brought me a copy of a statement which General MacArthur had sent to the commander in chief of the Veterans of Foreign Wars. This document was not to be read until August 28, but MacArthur's public relations office in Tokyo had handed it to the papers several days in advance, and when I first heard about it, on the morning of August 26, a weekly magazine was already in the mails with the full text.

The substance of the long message was that, "in view of misconceptions being voiced concerning the relationship of Formosa to our strategic potential in the Pacific," the general thought it desirable to put forth his own views on the subject. He argued that the oriental psychology required "aggressive, resolute and dynamic leadership," and "nothing could be more fallacious than the threadbare argument by those who advocate appeasement and defeatism in the Pacific that if we defend Formosa we alienate continental Asia." In other words, he called for a military policy of aggression, based on Formosa's position. The whole tenor of the message was critical of the very policy

which he had so recently told Harriman he would support. There was no doubt in my mind that the world would read it that way and that it must have been intended that way.

It was my opinion that this statement could only serve to confuse the world as to just what our Formosa policy was, for it was at odds with my announcement of June 27, and it also contradicted what I had told the Congress. Furthermore, our policy had been reaffirmed only the day before in a letter which, on my instructions, Ambassador Austin had addressed to the Secretary General of the United Nations, Trygve Lie.

The subject of Formosa had been placed before the Security Council by the Russian delegation, which charged us with acts of aggression in our aid to Chiang Kai-shek, and I had approved a State Department proposal that we counter this charge with a declaration that we were entirely willing to have the United Nations investigate the Formosa situation. Mr. Malik, the Russian delegate, was trying to persuade the Security Council that our action in placing the Seventh Fleet in the Formosa Strait amounted to the incorporation of Formosa within the American orbit. Austin's letter to Trygve Lie had made it plain that we had only one intention: to reduce the area of conflict in the Far East. General MacArthur's message—which the world might mistake as an expression of American policy—contradicted this.

Of course, I would never deny General MacArthur or anyone else the right to differ with me in opinions. The official position of the United States, however, is defined by decisions and declarations of the President. There can be only one voice in stating the position of this country in the field of foreign relations. This is of fundamental constitutional significance. General MacArthur, in addition to being an important American commander, was also the United Nations commander in Korea. He was, in fact, acting for and on behalf of the United Nations. That body was then debating the question of Formosa, and its members —even those outside the Soviet bloc—differed sharply in their views regarding Formosa. It was hardly proper for the U.N.'s agent to argue a case then under discussion by that body.

I realized that the damage had been done and that the MacArthur message was in the hands of the press.

I gave serious thought to relieving General MacArthur as our military field commander in the Far East and replacing him with General Bradley. I could keep MacArthur in command of the Japanese occupation, taking Korea and Formosa out of his hands. But after weighing it carefully I decided against such a step. It would have been difficult

to avoid the appearance of a demotion, and I had no desire to hurt General MacArthur personally. My only concern was to let the world know that his statement was not official policy.

I had a meeting scheduled for that Saturday morning, August 26, with Dean Acheson, Louis Johnson, John Snyder, Averell Harriman, and the Joint Chiefs of Staff. I read this group the MacArthur statement and asked each of them if he had had any advance knowledge of it. It was a surprise and a shock to all. I then instructed Secretary Johnson to send a personal message to MacArthur telling him that I wanted him to withdraw the statement. This, I knew, would not prevent its distribution, but it would make clear that it had no official standing and that it had been taken back by the man who had written it.

On August 26, 1950, Secretary Johnson sent the following message to MacArthur:

"The President of the United States directs that you withdraw your message for National Encampment of Veterans of Foreign Wars, because various features with respect to Formosa are in conflict with the policy of the United States and its position in the United Nations."

General MacArthur complied with this directive at once, but I felt that I ought to supplement Secretary Johnson's telegram with a more detailed exposition of our policy. A clear summary of our Formosa position was contained in the letter which Ambassador Austin had written to Trygve Lie, and I decided to call this letter to MacArthur's attention. I knew that a copy had been sent to his headquarters, but it might well have been misplaced among the many papers reaching there from Washington. A personal letter from me would make certain that it would be read, I thought. This is the letter I wrote General MacArthur:

I am sending you for your information the text of a letter which I sent to Ambassador Austin dated August 27. I am sure that when you examine this letter, and the letter which Ambassador Austin addressed to Trygve Lie on August 25 (a copy of which I am told was sent your headquarters that night), you will understand why my action of the 26th in directing the withdrawal of your message to the Veterans of Foreign Wars was necessary.

General Collins and Admiral Sherman have given me a comprehensive report of their conversation with you and of their visit to the United Nations forces now fighting under your command in Korea. Their reports are most satisfactory and highly gratifying to me.

The text of the letter to Ambassador Austin referred to above follows:

"As I told you on the telephone this morning, I want to congratulate you on your able presentation of the views of the United States Government in the Security Council of the United Nations from the first onset of the aggression against the Republic of Korea. Throughout the entire course of the proceedings you have represented this Government with great effectiveness and in full accordance with my directions.

"The letter which you addressed to the Secretary General of the United Nations on August 25 on the subject of Formosa admirably sums up the fundamental position of this Government as it had been stated by me on June 27 and in my Message to the Congress on July 19. You have clearly set forth in that letter the heart and essence of the problem. You have faithfully set down my views as they were then and as they are now.

"To the end that there be no misunderstanding concerning the position of the Government of the United States with respect to Formosa, it may be useful to repeat here the seven fundamental points which you so clearly stated in your letter to Mr. Lie.

"1. The United States has not encroached on the territory of China, nor has the United States taken aggressive action against China.

"2. The action of the United States in regard to Formosa was taken at a time when that island was the scene of conflict with the mainland. More serious conflict was threatened by the public declaration of the Chinese Communist authorities. Such conflict would have threatened the security of the United Nations forces operating in Korea under the mandate of the Security Council to repel the aggression of the Republic of Korea. They threatened to extend the conflict through the Pacific area.

"3. The action of the United States was an impartial neutralizing action addressed both to the forces on Formosa and to those on the mainland. It was an action designed to keep the peace and was, therefore, in full accord with the spirit of the Charter of the United Nations. As President Truman has solidly declared, we have no designs on Formosa, and our action was not inspired by any desire to acquire a special position for the United States.

"4. The action of the United States was expressly stated to be without prejudice to the future political settlement of the status of the island. The actual status of the island that it is territory taken from Japan by the victory of the Allied forces in the Pacific. Like other such territories, its legal status cannot be fixed until there is international action to determine its future. The Chinese Government was asked by the Allies to take the surrender of the Japanese forces on the island. That is the reason the Chinese are there now.

"5. The United States has a record through history of friendship for the Chinese people. We still feel the friendship and know that millions of Chinese reciprocate it. We took the lead with others in the last United Nations General Assembly to secure approval of a resolution on the integrity of China. Only the Union of Soviet Socialist Republics and its satellites did not approve that resolution.

"6. The United States would welcome United Nations consideration of the case of Formosa. We would approve full United Nations investigation, here or on the spot. We believe that United Nations consideration would contribute to a peaceful, rather than a forceable solution of that problem.

"7. We do not believe that the Security Council need be, or will be, diverted from its consideration of the aggression against the Republic of Korea. There was a breach of the peace in Korea. The aggressor attacked, has been condemned, and the combined forces of the United Nations are now in battle to repel the aggression.

"Formosa is now at peace and will remain so unless someone resorts to force.

"If the Security Council wishes to study the question of Formosa, we

shall support and assist that study. Meanwhile, the president of the Security Council should discharge the duties of his office and get on with the item on the agenda, which is the complaint of aggression against the Republic of Korea, and, specifically, the recognition of the right of the Korean Ambassador to take his seat and the vote on the United States resolution for the localization of the Korean conflict.

"These seven points accurately record the position of the United States.

"In the forthcoming discussion of the problem in the Security Council you will continue to have my complete support.

"Sincerely yours,
"Harry S. Truman"

The visit to Japan and Korea by General Collins and Admiral Sherman, to which I referred in my letter to MacArthur, marked an important phase in our effort in Korea. By early August our forces there had been built up to a ground strength of sixty-five thousand men, sufficient to hold the Pusan beachhead and enough to give encouragement to offensive planning, and on August 10 the Secretary of Defense informed me that it was planned to send nearly two more divisions to Korea before September 25. Naval and air forces had been similarly increased and further build-ups were in preparation.

To provide the forces General MacArthur had called for, we had drawn on troop units in the continental United States, in Puerto Rico, in Hawaii, and had even brought some marines back from duty with the fleet units in the Mediterranean.

General Collins and Admiral Sherman had left for Tokyo on August 19 for their detailed conference on General MacArthur's plans for an offensive, and on their return they placed these plans before me for my information and advised me that the Joint Chiefs had approved the plans. It was a daring strategic conception. I had the greatest confidence that it would succeed.

My confidence was expressed in a broadcast I made to the nation on September 1. "Two months ago," I said, "Communist imperialism turned from the familiar tactics of infiltration and subversion to brutal attack on the small Republic of Korea. The friendly nations of the world faced two possible courses: To limit their action to diplomatic protests while the Communist aggressors swallowed up their victim; or to meet military aggression with armed forces. The second course is the one which the free world chose. Thus, for the first time in all history, men of many nations are fighting under a single banner to uphold the rule of law in the world. This is an inspiring fact."

I declared that our aims and intentions could be put down in eight points: "1. We believe in the United Nations and pledge ourselves to seek peace and security through that organization. 2. We believe that

Koreans have a right to be free, independent, and united. 3. We do not want the fighting in Korea to spread into a general war; it will not spread unless Communist imperialism draws other armies and governments into the fight of the aggressors against the United Nations. 4. We hope in particular that the people of China will not be misled or forced into fighting against the United Nations and against the American people who have always been and still are their friends. 5. We do not want Formosa or any part of Asia for ourselves. 6. We believe in freedom for all of the nations of the Far East. 7. We do not believe in aggression or in preventive war. 8. Our men are fighting for peace today in Korea; we are working constantly for peace in the United Nations and in all the capitals of the world."

The decision to take the offensive in Korea made it necessary to consider on a high policy level what our subsequent course of action should be. This was done in National Security Council discussions which finally resulted in a policy statement that I approved on September 11, 1950.

The National Security Council recommended that our course of action would be influenced by three factors: action by the Soviet Union and the Chinese Communists, consultation with friendly members of the United Nations, and the risk of general war.

General MacArthur was to conduct the necessary military operations either to force the North Koreans behind the 38th parallel or to destroy their forces. If there was no indication or threat of entry of Soviet or Chinese Communist elements in force, the National Security Council recommended that General MacArthur was to extend his operations north of the parallel and to make plans for the occupation of North Korea. However, no ground operations were to take place north of the 38th parallel in the event of Soviet or Chinese Communist entry.

A Joint Chiefs' directive based on this recommendation, which I approved, was sent to General MacArthur on September 15.

September 15 was D-Day at Inchon. The 1st Marine Division and the Army's 7th Infantry Division went ashore there and established a bridgehead. Then these two units, comprising the X Corps commanded by Major General Almond, moved toward Seoul in order to free the Korean capital of the enemy. Resistance was fanatical, but on September 28 the liberation of the city was complete, and on September 29 Syngman Rhee moved his government back. Earlier, on September 26, a juncture had been effected between elements of the 1st Cavalry Division of the Eighth Army, which had broken out of the Pusan perimeter,

and 7th Infantry Division troops from the Inchon area. The enemy was disorganized and badly shaken.

I sent a message of congratulations to General MacArthur:

"I know that I speak for the entire American people when I send you my warmest congratulations on the victory which has been achieved under your leadership in Korea. Few operations in military history can match either the delaying action where you traded space for time in which to build up your forces, or the brilliant maneuver which has now resulted in the liberation of Seoul. I am particularly impressed by the splendid cooperation of our Army, Navy and Air Force, and I wish you would extend my thanks and congratulations to the commanders of those services—Lieutenant General Walton H. Walker, Vice Admiral Charles T. Joy and Lieutenant General George E. Stratemeyer. The unification of our arms established by you and by them has set a shining example. My thanks and the thanks of the people of all the free nations go out to your gallant forces—soldiers, sailors, marines and airmen—from the United States and the other countries fighting for freedom under the United Nations banner. I salute you all, and say to all of you from all of us at home, 'Well and nobly done.'"

I had already given approval to new instructions which the Joint Chiefs of Staff had transmitted to MacArthur on September 27, in which he was told that his military objective was "the destruction of the North Korean Armed Forces." In attaining this objective he was authorized to conduct military operations north of the 38th parallel in Korea, provided that at the time of such operation there had been no entry into North Korea by major Soviet or Chinese Communist forces, no announcement of an intended entry, and no threat by Russian or Chinese Communists to counter our operations militarily in North Korea. He was also instructed that under no circumstances were any of his forces to cross the Manchuria or U.S.S.R. borders of Korea, and, as a matter of policy, no non-Korean ground forces were to be used in the provinces bordering on the Soviet Union or in the area along the Manchurian border. Similarly, support of his operations north or south of the 38th parallel by air or naval action against Manchuria or against U.S.S.R. territory was specifically ruled out.

The directive further instructed the Far East commander the action he should take in the event of Soviet entry into the conflict or entry by the Chinese Communists. It read:

"In the event of the open or covert employment of major Chinese Communist units south of the 38th parallel, you should continue the action as long as action by your forces offers a reasonable chance of successful resistance."

In compliance with this directive, General MacArthur submitted his plan for operations north of the 38th parallel, the substance of which was an attack north along the western coastal corridor by the Eighth Army and an amphibious landing by the X Corps at Wonsan on the east coast of North Korea. The Joint Chiefs approved this plan on September 29.

On September 30 I went aboard the *Williamsburg* for a week's cruise and work on the Potomac. I had learned that one of the hardest things for the President to do is to find time to take stock. I have always believed that the President's office ought to be open to as many citizens as he can find time to talk to; that is part of the job, to be available to the people, to listen to their troubles, to let them share the rich tradition of the White House. But it raises havoc with one's day, and even though I always got up early, usually was at work ahead of the staff, and would take papers home with me at night to read, there always seemed to be more than I could do.

I do not know of any easy way to be President. It is more than a full-time job, and the relaxations are few. I used the presidential yacht, as well as the Little White House at Key West, less for holiday uses than as hideaways, and they were very useful when I wanted to catch up on my work and needed an opportunity to consult with my staff without interruptions.

Even so, the daily press of paper work did not let up during such trips. If I went out on the *Williamsburg,* for instance, a plane would bring mail and newspapers every morning, usually around nine or nine-thirty. Powerful radio equipment aboard enabled me to talk to anybody at the White House or through the White House switchboard to anyone who could be reached by telephone.

So when I went aboard the *Williamsburg* on September 30, I was in constant contact with what was going on. I was advised that on October 1 MacArthur had informed the Joint Chiefs of Staff that he wanted to issue a dramatic announcement on the occasion of the crossing of the 38th parallel but that the Chiefs had stopped him. They pointed out that such a statement would be unwise and instructed him to let operations proceed without calling special attention to the fact that his forces had entered North Korea.

On October 2 MacArthur reported that Republic of Korea Army units were operating north of the 38th parallel, that progress was rapid, and that there seemed little enemy resistance. On October 3 the State Department received a number of messages which all reported the same thing: The Chinese Communists were threatening to enter the Korean conflict. Chou En-lai, now the Foreign Minister of the Chinese Com-

munist regime, had called in the Indian Ambassador to Peiping, K. M. Panikkar, and had told him that if United Nations forces crossed the 38th parallel China would send in troops to help the North Koreans. However, this action would not be taken if only South Koreans crossed the 38th parallel.

This message was at once transmitted to General MacArthur.

Similar reports had been received from Moscow, Stockholm, and New Delhi. However, the problem that arose in connection with these reports was that Mr. Panikkar had in the past played the game of the Chinese Communists fairly regularly, so that his statement could not be taken as that of an impartial observer. It might very well be no more than a relay of Communist propaganda. There was also then pending in the Political and Security Committee of the General Assembly of the United Nations a resolution recommending that all appropriate steps be taken to insure stability throughout all of Korea. This resolution, if adopted, would be a clear authorization for the United Nations commander to operate in North Korea. The key vote on the resolution was due the following day, and it appeared quitely likely that Chou En-lai's "message" was a bald attempt to blackmail the United Nations by threats of intervention in Korea.

The possibility of Chinese intervention in Korea, however, could not be discounted, and I therefore instructed the Joint Chiefs of Staff to prepare a directive to General MacArthur to cover such an eventuality. The Joint Chiefs submitted their recommendation to me through the Secretary of Defense, George C. Marshall, who had succeeded Louis Johnson on September 21, and I approved the following message to General MacArthur:

"In light of the possible intervention of Chinese Communist forces in North Korea the following amplification of our directive [of September 25] is forwarded for your guidance:

" 'Hereafter in the event of the open or covert employment anywhere in Korea of major Chinese Communist units, without prior announcement, you should continue the action as long as, in your judgment, action by forces now under your control offers a reasonable chance of success. In any case you will obtain authorization from Washington prior to taking any military action against objectives in Chinese territory.' "

This directive was sent to General MacArthur on October 9. In the meantime, however, I had reached another decision. I wanted to have a personal talk with the general.

The first and the simplest reason why I wanted to meet with General MacArthur was that we had never had any personal contacts at all, and I thought that he ought to know his Commander in Chief and that I

ought to know the senior field commander in the Far East. I have always regretted that General MacArthur declined the invitations that were extended to him to return to the United States, even if only for a short visit, during his years in Japan. He should have come back to familiarize himself with the situation at home. This is something I have always advocated for our foreign service personnel—that they should spend one year in every four in their own country. Then they would understand what the home folks were thinking.

Events since June had shown me that MacArthur had lost some of his contacts with the country and its people in the many years of his absence. He had been in the Orient for nearly fourteen years then, and all his thoughts were wrapped up in the East. I had made efforts through Harriman and others to let him see the world-wide picture as we saw it in Washington, but I felt that we had had little success. I thought he might adjust more easily if he heard it from me directly.

The Peiping reports of threatened intervention in Korea by the Chinese Communists were another reason for my desire to confer with General MacArthur. I wanted to get the benefit of his firsthand information and judgment.

For a short time I thought of flying to Korea to pay our troops there a brief visit. I realized that MacArthur would feel that his place in those perilous days was near his forces and that he would hesitate to make the long trip across the ocean for what might be only a few hours' talk. I suggested, therefore, that we meet somewhere in the Pacific, and Wake Island was agreed on as a good location.

I announced that I was going to meet General MacArthur over the weekend of October 13–17. The reason I chose this weekend was that I had agreed to speak on October 17 in San Francisco, where a little over five years earlier I had spoken at the signing of the United Nations Charter. Then, on October 24, I was scheduled to address the U. N. General Assembly in New York. Naturally I wanted to be able to include in these speeches a firsthand account from the United Nations commander, and, in this sense, the journey I had in mind would be taken on behalf of the United Nations as well.

I left Washington aboard the presidential plane Independence on the afternoon of October 11 on the first leg of the trip, which took us only as far as St. Louis. After an overnight stop there the flight was resumed at two-thirty in the afternoon of the twelfth, and six and three quarters hours later we landed at Fairfield-Suisun Air Force Base in California.

The first portion of our long flight across the ocean began shortly after midnight that night, but I had gone aboard the plane about an hour earlier and was asleep before the take-off. I woke up around five

o'clock in the morning—or at least my watch gave that time. I discovered when I went forward to the pilots' section, however, that by local time it was only three. I had breakfast and then went forward again and sat in the second pilot's seat as we approached the Hawaiian Islands. It was still dark, but at regular intervals the lights of ships could be seen below. These were the destroyers the Navy had stationed along my route —just in case a mishap occurred to the plane. Colonel Williams, the pilot, said that visibility was exceptionally fine that morning; in any case, I had a breath-taking view of the entire chain of islands rising slowly out of the western sky, tiny little dark points in a vastness of blue that I would not have believed if I had not seen it myself. Then slowly the specks of land took shape and were distinct islands. At last the plane passed Diamond Head, circled low over Pearl Harbor, and came in for a landing at Hickam Air Force Base.

I was welcomed by an official party headed by Governor Stainback, Admiral Radford, commander of the Pacific fleet, and other high officials, both military and civilian.

Later that morning Admiral Radford escorted me on a boat trip about Pearl Harbor. He showed me the remnants and reminders of the tragic day in 1941, and he also showed me the fine facilities that served as the base for our great Pacific fleet today. I had lunch at the Officers' Club at Pearl Harbor and made a brief speech to the guests. In the afternoon I visited Tripler General Hospital and talked to some of the wounded who were there from Korea. Between Pearl Harbor and the hospital I seemed to have passed from one epoch of history into another, and yet 1941 was less than ten years ago.

The Independence left Hickam Field a few minutes after midnight on Saturday, October 14. Again I had retired before the plane was airborne and slept most of the way. I was asleep when we passed the international dateline, and I did not know that favorable wind conditions had gotten us ahead of schedule so that the pilot had to cut speed in order not to get to Wake Island before the prearranged arrival time.

I got up an hour before landing time, had breakfast with some of the members of my party, and at six-thirty the plane rolled to a halt on the Wake Island landing field. It was dawn. By local time it was Sunday, October 15.

General MacArthur was at the ramp of the plane as I came down. His shirt was unbuttoned, and he was wearing a cap that had evidently seen a good deal of use.

We greeted each other cordially, and after the photographers had finished their usual picture orgy we got into an old two-door sedan and drove to the office of the airline manager on the island.

We talked for more than an hour alone.

We discussed the Japanese and the Korean situations.

The general assured me that the victory was won in Korea. He also informed me that the Chinese Communists would not attack and that Japan was ready for a peace treaty.

Then he brought up the subject of his statement about Formosa to the Veterans of Foreign Wars. He said that he was sorry if he had caused any embarrassment. I told him that I considered the incident closed. He said he wanted me to understand that he was not in politics in any way—that he had allowed the politicians to make a "chump" (his word) of him in 1948 and that it would not happen again.

I told him something of our plans for the strengthening of Europe, and he said he understood and that he was sure it would be possible to send one division from Korea to Europe in January 1951. He repeated that the Korean conflict was won and that there was little possibility of the Chinese Communists coming in.

The general seemed genuinely pleased at this opportunity to talk with me, and I found him a most stimulating and interesting person. Our conversation was very friendly—I might say much more so than I had expected.

A little after seven-thirty we went to another small building, where other members of our parties had gathered. The others at this meeting, besides General MacArthur and myself, were Admiral Radford, Ambassador Muccio, Secretary of the Army Pace, General Bradley, Philip Jessup and Dean Rusk from the State Department, Averell Harriman, and Colonel Hamblen of Bradley's staff.

It was not until much later that I learned that Miss Vernice Anderson, the secretary to Ambassador Jessup, was next door and, without instructions from anyone, took down stenographic notes. This fact later became known during the hearings following General MacArthur's recall, and there was a good deal of noise about it. I can say that neither I nor Mr. Jessup nor anyone else had given Miss Anderson instructions to take notes; as a matter of fact, she was not brought along to take notes but merely to have a secretary available for the drafting of the communiqué that would have to be issued at the end of the meeting.

In any case, Miss Anderson's note-taking became known later on, and the record of what was said in this larger meeting at Wake Island has been printed in the newspapers and in some books as well. I will therefore relate here only the high points of the discussion—those things that so impressed me at the time that I remember them even without notes.

General MacArthur stated his firm belief that all resistance would

end, in both North and South Korea, by Thanksgiving. This, he said, would enable him to withdraw the Eighth Army to Japan by Christmas. He would leave two divisions and the detachments of the other United Nations in Korea until elections had been held there. He thought this might be done as early as January and that it would then be possible to take all non-Korean troops out of the country.

Quite a bit of discussion followed about the aid Korea would need for rehabilitation once the conflict had been concluded, and both General MacArthur and Ambassador Muccio answered questions which were put to them by me and other members of my party. When Secretary Pace asked General MacArthur what the Army or ECA could do to help him, the general said, without any hesitation, that he did not know of any commander in the history of war who had ever had more complete and adequate support than he had received from all agencies in Washington.

I remember that we talked about the prisoners our forces had taken, and the general said that they were the happiest Koreans in all Korea. They were well fed and clean, and though they had been captured as North Korean "Communists," they were really no different from other Koreans.

Then I gave MacArthur an opportunity to repeat to the larger group some of the things he had said to me in our private meeting.

"What are the chances," I asked, "for Chinese or Soviet interference?"

The general's answer was really in two parts. First he talked about the Chinese. He thought, he said, that there was very little chance that they would come in. At the most they might be able to get fifty or sixty thousand men into Korea, but, since they had no air force, "if the Chinese tried to get down to Pyongyang, there would be the greatest slaughter."

Then he referred to the possibilities of Russian intervention. He referred to the Russian air strength, but he was certain that their planes and pilots were inferior to ours. He saw no way for the Russians to bring in any sizable number of ground troops before the onset of winter. This would leave the possibility of combined Chinese-Russian intervention, he observed, with Russian planes supporting Chinese ground units. This, he thought, would be no danger. "It just wouldn't work," he added, "with Chinese Communist ground and Russian air."

Most of the later discussion was given over to the subject of Japan. MacArthur expressed himself strongly in favor of a Japanese peace treaty and approved especially of the State Department draft. He also said, in reply to a question from me, that he thought a Pacific pact

would be a good idea but that it would mean very little because the Asian nations had no military strength and therefore any agreement like that would be a one-way street, with the United States giving the Pacific nations a guarantee without getting much of anything in return. He thought a presidential statement would accomplish just as much as a pact in that area.

This formal conference ended at a little after nine o'clock. General MacArthur then had further discussions on technical matters with Secretary Pace and General Bradley, while Ambassador Muccio talked with the State Department officials in the party.

General MacArthur was anxious to return to Tokyo, and we decided, therefore, to leave Wake Island before lunch. The time differential between Wake Island and Tokyo would have thrown the general's return into the night hours if we had stayed and had lunch together, as I had planned.

I awarded General MacArthur a fourth Oak Leaf Cluster to his Distinguished Service Medal and also made an award to Ambassador Muccio. Then the general and I looked over the communiqué which General Bradley and Ambassador Jessup had drawn up, and MacArthur initialed it to indicate that it expressed his views.

As we returned to our planes I told MacArthur that I thought we had had a most satisfactory conference and that I hoped our next meeting would not be too long delayed. We shook hands, and he wished me "Happy landings" as I went aboard the Independence.

The return trip took us back across the international dateline on our way to Hawaii. It had been Sunday, October 15, when I left Wake Island, but it was Saturday, October 14, once again when I disembarked from the plane at Hickam Air Force Base. In this manner, although I had just spent Sunday on Wake Island, it was Sunday again the next day.

Most of the day was given over to work on the speech I would deliver in San Francisco. We had a lunch at a beach reservation and a drive to some of the scenic spots of the islands in the afternoon. The trip from Hawaii to San Francisco was made on Monday, October 16.

It was the following evening when I spoke in the San Francisco Opera House. I reported to the American people on the Wake Island meeting, and talked about Korea as a symbol of United Nations action.

"I have just returned from Wake Island," I said, "where I had a very satisfactory conference with General Douglas MacArthur.

"I understand that there has been speculation about why I made this trip. There is really no mystery about it. I went because I wanted to see and talk to General MacArthur. The best way to see him and talk to him is to meet him somewhere and talk to him.

"There is no substitute for personal conversation with the commander in the field who knows the problems there from first-hand experience. He has information at his fingertips which can be of help to all of us in deciding upon the right policies in these critical times.

"I went out to Wake Island to see General MacArthur because I did not want to take him far away from Korea, where he is conducting very important operations with great success. Events are moving swiftly over there now, and I did not feel that he should be away from his post too long.

"At the same time I believed my trip to Wake Island would give emphasis to the historic action taken by the United Nations on Korea. For Korea has become the symbol of the resistance of a united humanity against aggression.

"I also felt that there was pressing need to make it perfectly clear—by my talk with General MacArthur—that there is complete unity in the aims and conduct of our foreign policy.

"I have come back from this conference with increased confidence in our long-range ability to maintain world peace.

"At Wake Island we talked over the Far Eastern situation and its relationship to the problem of world peace. I asked General MacArthur for his ideas on the ways in which the United States can most effectively assist the United Nations in promoting and maintaining peace and security throughout the Pacific area.

"We discussed Japan and the need for an early Japanese peace treaty. Both of us look forward with confidence to a new Japan which will be peaceful and prosperous.

"General MacArthur told me about the fighting in Korea. He described the magnificent achievements of all the United Nations forces serving under his command. Along with the soldiers of the Republic of Korea these forces have now turned back the tide of aggression. More fighting men are coming from free nations all over the world. I am confident that these forces will soon restore peace to the whole of Korea.

"We here at home in America naturally take special pride in the superb achievements of our own soldiers, sailors, marines and airmen. They have written a glorious new page in military history. We can all be proud of them.

"It is also a source of pride to us that our country was asked to furnish the first commander of United Nations' troops. It is fortunate for the world that we had the right man for this purpose—a man who is a very great soldier—General Douglas MacArthur.

"Now I want Wake Island to be a symbol of our unity of purpose for world peace. I want to see world peace from Wake Island west all the

way around and back again. I want to see world peace from Wake Island all the way east and back again—and we are going to get it!

"The United Nations action in Korea is of supreme importance for all the peoples of the world.

"For the first time in history the nations who want peace have taken up arms under the banner of an international organization to put down aggression. Under that banner, the banner of the United Nations, they are succeeding. This is a tremendous step forward in the age-old struggle to establish the rule of law in the world. . . .

"Today as a result of the Korean struggle the United Nations is stronger than it has ever been. We know now that the United Nations can create a system of international order with the authority to maintain peace.

"When I met with General MacArthur we discussed plans for completing the task of bringing peace to Korea. We talked about the plans for establishing a 'unified, independent, and democratic' government in that country in accordance with the resolution of the General Assembly of the United Nations.

"It has been our policy ever since World War I to achieve these results for Korea.

"Our sole purpose in Korea is to establish peace and independence. Our troops will stay there only so long as they are needed by the United Nations for that purpose. We seek no territory or special privilege in Korea or anywhere else. We have no aggressive designs in Korea or in any other place in the Far East or elsewhere. And I want that to be perfectly clear to the whole world.

"No country in the world which really wants peace has any reason to fear the United States of America.

"The only victory we seek is the victory of peace.

"The United Nations forces in Korea are making spectacular progress. But the fighting there is not yet over. The North Korean communists still refuse to acknowledge the authority of the United Nations. They continue to put up stubborn, but futile, resistance.

"The United Nations forces are growing in strength and are now far superior to the forces which will oppose them. The power of the Korean communists to resist effectively will soon come to an end. . . .

"Here, in San Francisco, five years ago, we hoped that the Soviet Union would cooperate in this effort to build a lasting peace.

"But communist imperialism would not have it so. Instead of working with other governments in mutual respect and cooperation, the Soviet Union attempted to extend its control over other peoples. It embarked on a new colonialism—Soviet style. This new colonialism has already brought under its complete control and exploitation many

countries which used to be free countries. Moreover, the Soviet Union has refused to cooperate and has not allowed its satellites to cooperate with those nations it could not control.

"In the United Nations, the Soviet Union has persisted in obstruction. It has refused to share in activities devoted to the great economic, social, and spiritual causes recognized in the United Nations Charter. For months on end, it even boycotted the Security Council. . . .

"The Soviet Union and its colonial satellites are maintaining armed forces of great size and strength. In both Europe and Asia, their vast armies pose a constant threat to world peace. So long as they persist in maintaining these forces and in using them to intimidate other countries, the free men of the world have but one choice if they are to remain free. They must oppose strength with strength.

"This is not a task for the United States alone. It is a task for the free nations to undertake together. And the free nations are undertaking it together.

"In the United Nations, Secretary of State Dean Acheson has proposed a plan for 'Uniting For Peace,' to make it possible for the General Assembly to act quickly and effectively in case of any further outbreak of aggression. . . .

"Now, the Soviet Union can change this situation. It has only to give concrete and positive proof of its intention to work for peace. If the Soviet Union really wants peace, it must prove it—not by glittering promises and false propaganda, but by living up to the principles of the United Nations Charter.

"If the Soviet Union really wants peace, it can prove it—and could have proved it on any day since last June 25—by joining the rest of the United Nations in calling upon the North Koreans to lay down their arms at once.

"If the Soviet Union really wants peace, it can prove it by lifting the Iron Curtain and permitting the free exchange of information and ideas. If the Soviet Union really wants peace, it can prove it by joining in the efforts of the United Nations to establish a workable system of collective security—a system which will permit the elimination of the atomic bomb and the drastic reduction and regulation of all other arms and armed forces.

"But until the Soviet Union does these things, until it gives real proof of peaceful intentions, we are determined to build up the common defensive strength of the free world. This is the choice we have made. We have made it firmly and resolutely. But it is not a choice we have made gladly. We are not a militaristic nation. We have no desire for conquest or military glory. . . ."

CHAPTER 25

The first among the United Nations to join us for action in Korea were the United Kingdom and other Commonwealth countries. They did this in spite of the fact that Communist activity in Malaya put a heavy drain on British manpower. The British, however, had shown much concern over the danger that the conflict might enlarge and draw in the Soviet Union.

There had been some indication of this concern when our Air Force bombed the North Korean port of Rashin early in August. This city was a proper military target because of the important chemical and munitions plants there, but it was only seventeen miles from the Soviet border, and there was some fear abroad and in our State Department, too, that the Russians might take this as an attack aimed at them.

After the first signs of Chinese intervention, and following MacArthur's request for authority to retaliate against air attacks on his forces from Manchurian bases, the State Department had consulted the British and all other governments with forces in Korea to obtain their reaction. All of them, and not merely the British, were strongly opposed.

The anxiety of our allies became even more pronounced after a highly secret report was received from Peiping on November 15, stating that a top Russian diplomat there had said that if Manchurian airfields were bombed by United Nations planes the Soviet Air Force would strike back in force.

The massive counterblow by which the Chinese halted MacArthur's offensive was perhaps even more of a shock abroad than it was for us at home. Foreign newspapers speculated openly about the American reaction, quoting some of our more saber-rattling senators and talking

about MacArthur's ill-concealed disapproval of the American government's policies. There actually were open predictions that we would disregard the United Nations and plunge straight on into war with China and with anyone else who might be on China's side.

The possibility of general war, of course, was much more frightening to the inhabitants of Paris and London—barely recovered as they were from the ravages of the last war—than to a great many Americans who had not been subjected to the destruction of their cities. Europeans generally assumed that a new war would be a battle of atomic weapons, and the slightest mention of atomic bombs was enough to make them jittery. Of course it should never be forgotten that America had yet to prove to Europeans that the defense of Europe was something we would take seriously. Since newspapers sometimes seem to prefer to report bad news, most Europeans had heard only that there was opposition to NATO and to the sending of troops to Europe and to almost anything else that they thought might help them if they were to be subjected to attack.

Just how sensitive and on edge the world had become was demonstrated when the words "atomic bomb" were mentioned at my press conference on November 30.

At that conference I made the remark that "we will take whatever steps are necessary to meet the military situation, just as we always have."

"Will that include the atomic bomb?" one of the reporters asked.

"That includes every weapon that we have," I replied.

"Mr. President," the questioner shot back, "you said 'every weapon that we have.' Does that mean that there is active consideration of the use of the atomic bomb?"

"There has always been active consideration of its use," I told him. "I don't want to see it used. It is a terrible weapon, and it should not be used on innocent men, women and children who have nothing whatever to do with this military aggression. That happens when it is used."

To make quite sure that no one would misunderstand my words, I authorized Charles Ross, my press secretary, to issue a separate clarifying statement after the press conference.

"The President wants to make it certain," this read, "that there is no misinterpretation of his answers to questions at his press conference today about the use of the atom bomb. Naturally, there has been consideration of this subject since the outbreak of the hostilities in Korea, just as there is consideration of the use of all military weapons whenever our forces are in combat.

"Consideration of the use of any weapon is always implicit in the very possession of that weapon.

"However, it should be emphasized, that, by law, only the President can authorize the use of the atom bomb, and no such authorization has been given. If and when such authorization should be given, the military commander in the field would have charge of the tactical delivery of the weapon.

"In brief, the replies to the questions at today's press conference do not represent any change in this situation."

In spite of this assurance that the use of the atomic bomb was still subject to my approval and that I had not given such approval, news reports persisted that I had threatened to use the A-bomb in Korea. In London, one hundred Labor MP's signed a letter to Prime Minister Attlee to protest the possibility of the use of the atomic bomb. During a debate which our embassy described as "the most serious, anxious, and responsible debate on foreign affairs conducted by the House of Commons since the Labor Party came to power in 1945," not only the followers of Mr. Aneurin Bevan but also Churchill, Eden, and Butler talked about "disquiet" and generally indicated that they wanted to be assured that events in Korea would not propel the world into a major war. Typical, perhaps, was the comment of the Conservative leader Butler, who said that "the British people as a whole wished to be assured before their fate was decided [by the extension of the war to China] that they were helping to decide their own fate."

Attlee announced at the end of this debate in the House of Commons that he was planning to fly over for conferences with me, and so greatly was the tension relieved by his statement that it brought cheers from both sides of the House. No one who read the accounts of this debate could possibly escape the fact that the British were seriously worried.

Clement Attlee arrived in Washington on December 4, and we had our first formal talks from four to five thirty-five that afternoon.

I opened the conference with a few words of welcome and then asked General Bradley to summarize the military situation in Korea. Attlee inquired about the control of the air over Korea, and Bradley assured him that there was no trouble so far; that we were operating from five carriers and seven good airfields in Korea.

Secretary of Defense Marshall pointed out that it was important to realize that the enemy was using manpower without regard to losses and also that, owing to the manner of their operations—without trucks or mechanized equipment—it was much easier for them to conceal their movements than for us.

I said that we were faced with very grave military decisions but that the political decisions were no less difficult. I expressed the hope, however, that we could have a free and frank discussion. We had obligations in the East and in the West, I stated, and did not intend to run out on any of them even though it might prove difficult to meet all our obligations. I expressed the belief, however, that we should first discuss the problem of the Chinese Communist intervention and asked for Attlee's comments.

Attlee began by saying that it was important to maintain the prestige and authority of the United Nations. He pointed out that the United States had been the principal instrument for supporting the United Nations and that the United Kingdom was giving what help it could. But the United Kingdom would not be able to get any additional strength into Korea for several months and, from General Bradley's report, Attlee said he understood that the crisis might come much sooner.

The Prime Minister said that opinion in the United Nations and in the countries of Europe, Asia, and America had to be considered. He had been in close touch through all this time with the Asian members of the Commonwealth and suggested that we ought to look also at the point of view of the Chinese Communists. They were feeling flushed with success and would not want to settle for some principle announced by the United Nations, to which they did not belong. They would want to feel their own strength and independence. Thus, even if the Russians might think of a settlement, that might not necessarily convince Mao Tse-tung.

What, Attlee asked, were the Communists likely to demand as the price for a cease-fire? There was danger that if we showed a spirit of accommodation the price would go up. But he thought we ought to discuss just how far we were prepared to go, what kinds of things we wanted to negotiate, and where we should stand firm. Whatever decision we reached, he said, was apt to be distasteful, but we had to bear in mind that the West could not be given up, that it was still the vital point in our line against Communism.

I asked Secretary Acheson to express our position in the matters touched on by the Prime Minister, and the Secretary pointed out that, first of all, it had to be remembered that the central enemy was not China but the Soviet Union. All the inspiration for the Korean action came from Moscow. No doubt there had been some arrangement between the Chinese and the Russians to make the Chinese think they had strong Russian support. While their attack was going well, there

seemed little limit to what they might try to do and, if they could drive us out of Korea, they would do so. And no one could tell how much farther they might be inclined to go.

Regarding the question of all-out war against China—meaning land, sea, and air action—Acheson assured the British conferees that there were "not many of the President's advisers who would urge him to follow that course." He added, however, that he could not be optimistic about prospects of negotiations with the Chinese Communists. We did not have an alternative of either negotiating or becoming involved in war. We were actually involved at the moment.

Acheson analyzed the problem of negotiations. From a military point of view, he observed, there seemed to be an advantage to us from a cease-fire as soon as possible. But the fact that it would be advantageous to our side naturally meant that it would be disadvantageous to the Chinese, and therefore they would not be likely to accept it. From a political standpoint, there might be some advantage in suggesting a cease-fire as far as world opinion was concerned; but if negotiations resulted, the question would arise as to what price would be asked. It seemed predictable that the Chinese Communists would ask for recognition of their government, for a seat in the United Nations Security Council, and for concessions on Formosa. They might even insist that any Japanese peace settlement had to have their assent.

We had to remember, the Secretary continued, that this intervention in Korea was not a spontaneous maneuver. It had design. If we became preoccupied in Asia, Russia would gain a free hand in Europe. But if we settled with the Communists—for instance, at the price of Formosa—this fact would be used against us in the most devastating manner throughout Asia. He could not believe, he said, that the Chinese action was just a burst of Chinese military fervor or that they would become calm and peaceful if we gave them Formosa and made other concessions. On the contrary, if we gave concessions, they would only become more aggressive. If we yielded to the Chinese Communists the effect on the Japanese and the Filipinos might be serious. And if we did not negotiate and did not make a settlement, we might be able to fight on in Korea, giving the Chinese as much punishment as possible, and our position would be no worse. We should, he thought, make it a policy not to recognize the enemy's gains.

Prime Minister Attlee asked at this point how long the beachheads could be held as an annoyance to the Chinese Communists without too much loss. General Bradley and Secretary Marshall both spoke in reply, declaring that the eastern-sector beachhead could probably not be held but that the western sector, based on Inchon and Pusan, could probably

hold for some time, especially if it should become possible to reinforce that area with troops evacuated from the eastern sector.

The Prime Minister inquired what the reaction of the American public would be if we continued to hold the beachheads with continuing losses. Would there not be a demand for all-out war against China?

I replied that such demands could be heard now. We were making great sacrifices, and vast sums of money had been appropriated. It was my hope that we could hold the line in Korea until the situation improved the chances for negotiations. I admitted that all my military advisers had told me that there was no chance to hold the line. But that, I still wanted to try.

Attlee observed that opinions differed on the extent to which the Chinese Communists were Kremlin satellites.

I said that in my opinion the Chinese Communists were Russian satellites. The problem we were facing was part of a pattern. After Korea, it would be Indo-China, then Hong Kong, then Malaya. I said that I did not want war with China or any nation but that the situation looked very dark to me. The Chinese Communists, in my belief, had made up their minds what they wanted to get, including a U.N. seat and Formosa—or war.

Acheson remarked that it really didn't matter too much whether the Chinese Communists were satellites or not. They would probably act in much the same way, regardless of the answer to that question. But he thought it would be a mistake to count on their good will. He said there was a saying among State Department officials that with communistic regimes you could not bank good will; they balanced their books every night.

General Marshall recalled the several meetings he had had with Mao Tse-tung and with Chou En-lai during his mission to China. He said that Chou on one occasion had with great emphasis told Mrs. Marshall at the dinner table that there was no doubt they were Marxist Communists and that he resented people referring to them as merely agrarian reformers. Marshall said there had been not the slightest attempt to conceal their Moscow affiliations. They regarded the Russians as co-religionists, and this feeling was thoroughly indoctrinated in their troops.

I told Attlee that I relied on General Marshall's judgment, especially since he had spent a year in closest contact with these people. And I also wanted to add emphasis to what Acheson had said about our desire to avoid war with China. I therefore recounted what had transpired on Wake Island between MacArthur and myself, especially pointing out that I had told MacArthur to avoid giving any provocation to the Chinese in Manchuria and the Russians in Vladivostok, and adding that

we had no desire to act in this matter except as members of the United Nations.

Then I read to the Prime Minister the following memorandum that had been agreed on by the State and Defense Departments and to which I had given my approval.

"1. It would be militarily advantageous in the immediate situation if a cease-fire order could be arranged provided that considerations offered were not so great as to be unacceptable. This might insure full support of the United Nations. Arrangements for a cease-fire must not impose conditions which would jeopardize the safety of United Nations forces nor be conditioned on agreement on other issues, such as Formosa, and the Chinese seat in the United Nations.

"2. If a cease-fire should be effected which permits a stabilization of the situation, United Nations should proceed with the political, military and economic stabilization of the Republic of Korea while continuing efforts to seek an independent and unified Korea by political means.

"3. If the Chinese Communists reject a cease-fire and move major forces south of the 38th parallel, the United Nations forces may face a forced evacuation of Korea. The consequences of a voluntary abandonment of our Korean allies would be such that any United Nations evacuation must be clearly the result of military necessity only."

At this point I paused in the reading of the memorandum and emphatically repeated that it was out of the question that we should get out voluntarily. All the Koreans left behind who had been loyal to the United Nations would face death. The Communists cared nothing about human life. With this made clear, I continued with the memorandum:

"4. If the situation in the preceding paragraph develops, the United Nations must take immediate action to declare Communist China an aggressor and must mobilize such political and economic measures as are available to bring pressure upon Peiping and to affirm the determination of the United Nations not to accept an aggression. Also, there is the possibility of some military action which would harass the Chinese Communists and of efforts which could be made to stimulate anti-communist resistance within China itself, including the exploitation of Nationalist capabilities.

"In addition to the measures indicated above, the United States and United Kingdom should consult immediately about other steps which might be taken to strengthen non-communist Asia. These steps might include:

"(a) Restoration of considerable self-government to Japan, the ac-

celeration of efforts to obtain a Japanese peace settlement, the strengthening of Japanese capacity for self-defense, the greater utilization of productive capacity to strengthen the capabilities of the free world, and the prompt admission of Japan into international organizations. United Kingdom reluctance to move on these three points should be discarded in light of the new critical situation.

"(b) Appropriate military arrangements between nations in southeast Asia capable of effective mutual support.

"(c) Special efforts to convince non-communist Asia of the nature of the threat which confronts it and to urge upon the governments concerned the need for concerted Asian action to resist communist aggression in that area.

"(d) Intensification of economic and military assistance to encourage the organization of resistance to communist encroachment.

"(e) Intensification of psychological and cover activity against communist regimes and activity in Asia."

Commenting on the last two items, I said that I had been thinking about some kind of Marshall Plan for Southeast Asia. ECA had done a lot of good work there. A special plan was under way for the Philippines to stabilize their situation, and I expressed my hope that it would receive speedy approval in Congress. Plans of this kind, I said, deserved consideration and discussion.

Sir Oliver Franks, the British Ambassador in Washington, then skillfully summarized the discussion we had had and, after agreeing to a brief statement for the reporters, the meeting was adjourned.

Our next session was aboard the presidential yacht *Williamsburg* the following day, December 5, 1950. After a luncheon at which some congressional leaders were present, the same group that had conferred the previous afternoon met again. Charlie Ross, my long-time friend and press secretary, was also present. It was to be almost his last official function. That evening, while he was still at his desk, Charlie suffered a heart attack and died. We had been friends since high school days, and his loss grieved me very much. It struck me like a loss in my immediate family.

The earlier part of our December 5 meeting aboard the *Williamsburg* was taken up largely with a discussion of the text of the resolution to be introduced in the General Assembly of the United Nations. When the minor differences on this matter had been ironed out, however, I spoke about my deep concern and extreme preoccupation with the military situation in Korea.

I said again that I was determined that we would not back out—that if we got out, someone would have to force us out. We certainly could

do no less for the South Koreans who had been loyal to us. I said that I realized that we were exposing our fleet and air arm to the danger of a surprise attack from Manchuria. "We did not get into this fight," I said, "with the idea of getting licked. We will fight to the finish to stop this aggression. I don't intend to take over military command of the situation in Korea—I leave that up to the generals—but I want to make it perfectly plain that we cannot desert our friends when the going gets rough."

I got a little warm as I talked, but Clement Attlee was no less sincere when he answered: "We are in it with you. We'll support you. We'll stand together on those bridgeheads. How long we can hold on is a matter of opinion."

I said again that, whatever we did, it could never be a voluntary withdrawal from Korea. "I don't want to get out," I insisted, "if there is any chance that we can stay."

"You can take it from me," Attlee repeated, "that we stand with you. Our whole purpose is to stand with you."

I thanked him for his attitude and for his words. Loyalty to principles and friends and also to treaty commitments is a British attitude, and it is ours too.

Attlee then returned to the discussion that we had had the day before, stating first what he thought we had agreed on. It seemed to him that there was agreement not to get bogged down in a major war with China and that we had ruled out bombing industrial centers in China. Then he restated the proposal Acheson had made; namely, that we should remain in Korea until forced out and not get into any negotiations. The Prime Minister's reaction to this was that, in the first place, it would be difficult to get U.N. action on any move that might appear directed against Peiping or likely to result in retaliations. He did not think, in the second place, that we would be able to hurt China much, while the Chinese might do us a good deal of harm. It seemed to him, he said, that we would wind up either in a shooting war or in negotiations.

Attlee then proceeded to give us the point of view of his government. In his opinion the Chinese Communists were potentially ripe for "Titoism." He could not consider that China was completely in the hands of Russia, and therefore the aim ought to be to divide the Russians and the Chinese—who are natural rivals in the Far East.

"I think," he said, "that all of us should try to keep the Chinese from thinking that Russia is their only friend. I want the Chinese to part company with Russia. I want them to become a counterpoise to Russia in the Far East. If we don't accept this theory, if we just treat the Chinese as Soviet satellites, we are playing the Russian game."

Secretary Acheson answered the Prime Minister with a rhetorical

question. What, he asked, did the American people think of as a long-range view? He said he did not see how it was possible for any administration to offer to the American people a foreign policy which, on one ocean, had a policy of isolationism, while at the same time it was advocating a very vigorous foreign policy, the opposite of isolationism, over the other ocean. We could not possibly be isolationists in the Pacific, ignoring there what the Communists in China had been doing, while at the same time we were taking a strong anti-isolationist stand against the threats of the Communists in Europe.

Acheson then made another telling point: Our country had gone on to do something quite vigorous in the case of a minor aggression in Korea. Now we were faced with a bigger aggression, the aggression of Communist China—we had even suffered a setback at the hands of this aggressor. If we accepted this larger aggression, it could not fail to affect our entire thinking about aggression—and not only in Asia but also in Europe. It would be a very confusing thing to try to get the American people to accept aggression in the Far East and not accept it in Europe.

The Secretary of State also called the attention of our British guests to the fact that Chiang Kai-shek was another complicating factor, for Chiang, rightly or wrongly, had become something of a symbol.

I gave Attlee a short summary of the kind of trouble that Chiang presented for us. I pointed out that his friends, especially in the Senate, kept up a running clamor on his behalf. Yet all of Chiang's actions suggested that he was not interested in improving the conditions of the territory he controlled but rather that he hoped to get us involved on China's mainland. And to this Acheson added that, entirely apart from Chiang Kai-shek, Formosa could not be allowed to fall into Communist hands. If, while we were so heavily engaged in Korea, he said, we permitted Formosa to be attacked and fall, we would raise the gravest dangers in Japan and the Philippines which were the bases from which our operations were being conducted and upon which our whole Pacific position rested.

We could not buy the friendship of the Chinese Communists, Acheson insisted, and we ought not try to prove that we were more friendly to them than the Russians. After what they had done to us, it seemed to him that the Chinese would have to prove that they were *our* friends. Our position now, Acheson went on, was that we ought to get the military power and the strength to stop this sort of thing from happening in the future. We had to have a policy that would keep going on the basis of strength.

I expressed my full agreement with the presentation the Secretary

had made and added that it was important to realize that the United States could do nothing abroad without solid backing at home. We could not back out of the Far East. The American people would not stand for it. It was impossible.

Attlee said he understood that our foreign policy was dependent upon keeping the American people together. But it was also essential, he added, to keep the United Nations together. Furthermore, we had to keep Asian opinion together—nothing would be more dangerous than for the Asians to split away from us. Acheson broke in. "Weakening the United States," he said, "would be definitely more dangerous."

Attlee continued to argue the case for a policy that would consider the adherence of the Asian nations to the West as the primary aim. He turned to me, saying that he knew that I would have to consider public opinion about Chiang Kai-shek and Formosa but that he hoped I would also remember that whatever we did would have to be done through the U.N., and it could not be done there by the efforts and votes of just the United States and the United Kingdom, "important as we are."

Sir Oliver Franks proved himself again a fine diplomat as he stepped in and summarized the points that we appeared agreed upon. This brought the discussion back to specific points and first to the question of whether the seating of the Chinese Communists at the U.N. should be considered as a subject that might be included in negotiations with them.

Acheson took the position that we should not even consider it. If we did, we would in effect be saying to the Communists that they had won the game and could now collect the stakes; it would be like offering a reward for aggression. For that reason, if for no other, Acheson preferred that there be no negotiations at all, even if the Communists won and forced us out of Korea.

I asked General Marshall to speak to the same point, and the General said that he had very strong feelings in the matter from a military point of view. Supported by General Bradley, he stated the reasons why we could not afford to have our chain of island outposts split by a Formosa in hostile possession.

The British then advanced the idea that perhaps Chiang could be left in control on Formosa while at the same time we might recognize that China (proper) was under the Peiping regime. General Marshall made the comment that the biggest problem connected with Chiang was the fact that there was no replacement for him—that it had long been "brutally evident" that, despite the strong opposition to Chiang, there was nobody who could succeed him.

The meeting adjourned at 4:50 P.M.

Two meetings were held on December 6, the morning meeting being given over almost entirely to economic matters. The British had come to Washington with a list of the raw materials they needed in order to get their defense program stepped up properly. Their problem was simply that they could not import without exporting but that they had to import to rearm. The postwar "austerity" had forced the British economy to cut back to bare essentials, especially those required for the physical rebuilding of the country, and, as Attlee put it that morning, "we can't cut back much more; we don't have any fat left to sweat off."

There were some commodities which the British needed at once, such as zinc, sulphur, and cotton. Attlee asked that we consider these needs but that we also discuss with them the feasibility of setting up combined machinery to handle such economic problems, similar to the setup we had had during World War II.

I assured the Prime Minister that my associates and I appreciated the nature of the problem, which we had discussed at a Cabinet meeting the day before. I told him also that the staff and the Cabinet members had been instructed to talk to the members of the British group and that it would be agreeable to me if they held full-dress discussions of all problems connected with raw-material shortages—that I hoped they would come up with something that could be approved before our Washington talks came to an end. I announced that I had asked Stuart Symington, chairman of our National Security Resources Board, to be chairman of the U.S. group of conferees and that their talks could start that same afternoon.

Shortly before we went into that morning meeting, Under Secretary Lovett called from the Pentagon, reporting that the radar screens of some air defense installations in the Far North were reporting large formations of unidentified planes approaching. Fighter planes were sent up to reconnoiter and alerts were flashed to air centers in New England and beyond. But about an hour later—while I was meeting with Attlee—Lovett notified me that the report had been in error. Some unusual disturbance in the Arctic atmosphere had thrown the radar off.

Our afternoon was devoted to discussion of the European situation, especially the matter of getting the countries of NATO to agree on an integrated military setup. The British were anxious to see such an arrangement come into being soon and renewed their arguments that American troops in Europe—even if they were green and had to be trained there—would serve better than anything else to stimulate European efforts. We agreed on the text of a letter to the French to persuade

them to speed up their action on the proposal for the integration of European defense forces.

Our meeting on December 7 brought us back to the Far Eastern situation. Attlee pointed out that it had been agreed that we would try to avoid a general war with China but that we would hold on in Korea as long as we could. He was of the opinion that this would still force us to come to a Far Eastern settlement sooner or later, and he wanted to develop his thoughts on that subject.

First, his government thought that China (meaning Communist China) ought to be seated in the U.N. The Prime Minister admitted that this was one point on which his people differed from us. But he thought that somewhere, somehow, we would find ourselves dealing with the Chinese Communists. The British, he said, had found out that it did not pay to pretend that the "nasty fellow" on the other side was not there.

Attlee also had doubts about a limited war in Korea. He said he saw the reason behind it and certainly considered it, rationally, the thing to do. But he foresaw trouble because, he believed, we would find people clamoring for total victory—and that meant unlimited war.

"I think," said the Prime Minister, "if China were in the United Nations, there would be a possibility of discussion. That, I know, is distasteful to you. But I think if there is to be a settlement, it is better to have it come through the United Nations. I'm inclined to think myself that if the present Chinese government were in the United Nations, we would get less loss of face than if we were dealing with someone outside."

Once the Chinese Communists were in the United Nations, Attlee concluded, it would be possible to use the arguments of the principles of the United Nations in dealing with them. It was not possible to do this so long as they stayed outside.

Dean Acheson answered the Prime Minister's argument on the matter of limited action. Acheson admitted that there was not very much that we could do to Communist China unless we wished to engage in all-out war. But, the Secretary of State said, our attitude toward Communist China would mean a lot in the Far East. It would help us to build up Japan and the Philippines and other Asian states. Our policy in the Far East should be controlled, he thought, not by formal logic but by the results of our acts.

The Secretary of State noted that we were under Soviet pressure in many parts of the world. All around the globe the Kremlin seemed to be stepping up its campaign against America. We would have to answer our Far East question in the light of the one overriding consideration, "How near is war?" If we assumed that the Communists were indeed moving with great speed toward war, then it would be a grievous mistake to try

to buy off the aggressor just before he broke loose. It would only weaken us. It might tempt the aggressor more. "My own guess is that it wouldn't work," the Secretary continued. "All we might get would be time, but never enough time to do any good. Just enough time to divide our people bitterly. Just enough time to lose our moral strength."

Attlee seemed a little taken aback. Acheson, he said, was assuming that negotiations would mean retreat all along the line. He was assuming that Formosa would go Communist, but perhaps it would not. Perhaps we could limit our negotiations to the question of keeping the Communists on the 38th parallel in Korea.

Acheson replied that his point was that we should not get into negotiations until we knew where we were going. If we had a cease-fire now, we would be negotiating from weakness. If we could hold on and perhaps improve our position, we could approach a cease-fire quite differently. Of course if we got thrown out of Korea there would be no negotiations, but we would have made our point.

I added that we would face terrible divisions among our people here at home if the Chinese Communists were admitted to the United Nations, and I could not see what we could gain that would offset this loss in public morale. If we admitted the Chinese Reds to the U.N., would they be any different from the Russians? I said I expected them to behave just like the other satellites.

I talked, as strongly as I knew how, about the language the Chinese Reds were using about us at Lake Success and the falsehoods they were spreading. I said their handling of our missionaries and of our consuls was a blot on humanity. There was nothing in getting them admitted to the U.N. until they changed their ways.

Sir Roger Makins, British Deputy Under Secretary of State, noted that any policy that our governments followed ought to be a United Nations policy. I quite agreed. Sir Roger continued to say that it followed that any policy we had would have to be one that could command a majority in the General Assembly. As he saw it, there was a very strong sentiment in the United Nations for a negotiated settlement. That feeling, he thought, was so strong that if we had not been so careful in the past to negotiate everything pertaining to Korea through the United Nations we would now be having real trouble trying to keep other nations with us. He thought that perhaps we ought to let the United Nations find the way to some settlement.

Dean Rusk, our Assistant Secretary of State in charge of Far Eastern affairs, agreed with Sir Roger that we ought, by all means, keep the other countries with us. But he said that he could see no reason why we should have to prove our good will by agreeing to the seating of the

Chinese Reds in the U.N. in order to get a settlement. We had taken the initiative a number of times in the U.N. to demonstrate clearly our peaceful intentions and had always run into the Russian veto. If we agreed to admit the Chinese Communists now just so we could talk with them, we would have made a major concession. We had over and over again shown our willingness to talk and should not be asked now to make concessions before we were allowed to talk.

General Marshall said he knew that we were all agreed on staying out of a general war with China. We were agreed on that, he said, primarily because we were faced with the threat of a global war. Since that threat was real, and since we knew that we were dealing with people with whom it was almost impossible to negotiate, it would be very dangerous to go into negotiations at a time and in a way that would only reveal our weakness.

We could not afford to let Formosa go, Marshall said. It was of no particular strategic importance in our hands, but it would be of disastrous importance if it were held by an enemy. He said he had no immediate answer to the problem except to maintain our position and use the time to gather strength on all fronts.

At this point I sketched in some of the history of the Cairo Declaration with regard to Formosa—a declaration framed at a time when Japan was the overwhelming enemy in the Pacific. Our objective then had been to establish a power in the Pacific that would be friendly to the United States and to the United Kingdom and, anticipating a bit, to the United Nations. It was also our objective to upset the enemy by announcing our aims.

But now, I continued, the situation was reversed. The nation we had hoped to establish—China—had not only fallen into unfriendly hands but also was now "viciously hostile" to the United States.

Our position in Korea, I went on, had been brought about by my decision to give the fullest support to the United Nations resolution against aggression, and I was glad that the British were with us. The purpose of our action was to protect a little country from the result of aggression, and we had been on the verge of succeeding when a "viciously hostile" country intervened.

"We can't open our whole flank now by giving up Formosa to that country," I said. "We just can't agree with that. I think in the long run the Chinese will realize that their real friends are not in Moscow and Siberia; they are in London and in Washington."

"You won't bring them to that realization," the Prime Minister said without smiling, "if you keep fighting them."

"No," I said, "but I won't back out of Korea. . . ."
"I am with you there," said Attlee.

There was a pause. We had made our points and knew where we differed.

Lord Tedder and General Marshall now began to discuss what a continued policy of limited hostility to Communist China might mean, and Field Marshal Slim and General Bradley joined in. After the discussion had gone in this direction for a while, Averell Harriman asked to speak. He thought, he said, that it was vitally important for everyone to realize that we were basically concerned with the morale of the free world. If we gave in to Communism, morale would slip badly. We would do nothing but harm in Europe if we were to surrender in the Far East. The only way out of the crisis was to adopt a most vigorous program of strengthening the free world. This meant any number of things, but most of all it meant NATO. There simply was no hope for vigorous action on North Atlantic Treaty matters unless the United States and the United Kingdom could be together on the Far East.

I expressed my agreement with the views of Harriman. Sir Oliver Franks, as he had done at the previous meetings, proceeded to pull the threads of the conversation together. He stressed the fact that the British had not come to Washington to insist on some specific set of conditions but only to ask us to consider their views and to share our thoughts with them. He said that there was obviously no doubt on the basic issues; namely, the avoidance of general war and the determination to remain in Korea. He thought that General Marshall's remark about waiting for time to go by was very relevant, and said that the British had not come with any fixed ideas of what concessions should be made or that any concessions had to be made. As he saw it, there was, as a result of the talks, a much more real understanding of what the other government's views were and that this would be very useful and very helpful in the future. The differences had been in emphasis rather than in approach.

Dean Acheson said he concurred.

I asked Attlee if he thought we could adjourn the meeting until eleven o'clock the next day, when we might review the work of our various expert groups and agree on a communiqué to be issued. The Prime Minister said that was agreeable to him.

I found occasion to talk with Attlee more informally at a small stag dinner at the British Embassy that evening, and spoke to him about the problem of the men composing the Senate opposition who seemed to be violently determined to disrupt the nation's foreign policy. Only

that day twenty-four senators, all Republicans, had joined in a resolution offered by Senator Kem—from my own state of Missouri—with the "1000 per cent support" of Senator Wherry, demanding to be informed about the "secret commitments" I had made to Attlee. These were the men who saw nothing wrong in plunging headlong into an Asian war but would raise no finger for the defense of Europe; who thought a British Prime Minister was never to be trusted but Chiang Kai-shek could do no wrong.

Attlee, in turn, spoke of the opposition from some of his own Labor Party leaders, especially Aneurin Bevan and his group, and the trouble they gave him. We talked as only two men can talk who have spent a lifetime in politics—we probably understood much better what the sources of many of our problems were than we could have stated in a public communiqué.

The Friday meeting had been intended as just a formality to give us an opportunity to approve the communiqué of the conference. But in the meantime General Collins had returned from his trip to Japan and Korea, and I asked him to come in and give his report on the battle situation to the combined British-American group. Collins gave us a detailed account with the aid of large-scale maps. He showed us, division by division and almost battalion by battalion, where the U.N. forces were. He reported that the Eighth Army commander, General Walker, was convinced that he could hold southern Korea, provided he was not required to make a defense of Seoul. Collins said that MacArthur shared this confidence and, after his own inspection, Collins did too. General Walker was also reported to be confident that he could hold a sizable part of Korea for an indefinite time, basing his supply lines on the port of Pusan. The situation of the X Corps in the east was still serious, but Collins had no doubt that it would be possible to get practically all of it out by sea, adding that, from a military point of view, the situation in Korea was serious but no longer critical.

The meeting then proceeded to the reports of the experts and the drafting of the communiqué. This latter job was turned over to some of the diplomatic experts present, and our remarks were informal while we waited for them to return.

During this interval Attlee raised the subject of the atom bomb. He and I were sitting alone, and he asked me if my recent press-conference statement had been intended to be a hint of some sort that perhaps we were giving more active thought to using the bomb. I assured him that nothing of the sort was intended and told him in detail how the statement came to be made. We agreed then to insert a short passage in the

communiqué to give new emphasis to the true facts with respect to the bomb.

Again, as in our earlier sessions, Sir Oliver Franks was helpful. The British Ambassador was a tall, slim man with a keen mind and a friendly approach to the questions before us. When the Prime Minister and I were stalled on certain sentences in the communiqué, he knelt down between us and suggested words and sentences which were often adopted. I asked him what the Prime Minister's constituents and his government would do if they could see a picture of the British Ambassador on his knees to the President of the United States. He was as tall kneeling as Attlee and I were sitting. It was just a convenient posture from which to work across the writing arm of my desk, with the Prime Minister on one side and me on the other.

The final communiqué related that we had reviewed together the outstanding problems facing our two countries in international affairs. It reaffirmed that the objectives of our two nations in foreign policy were the same; namely, to maintain world peace and respect for the rights and interests of all peoples, to promote strength and confidence among the freedom-loving countries of the world, to eliminate the causes of fear, want, and discontent, and to advance the democratic way of life.

The communiqué also noted that the discussions had been keynoted by this unity of objectives of our two countries and made it clear that there was no difference between us as to the nature of the threat our countries faced or the basic policies which had to be pursued to overcome it. We announced that we had carefully reviewed the situation in Korea, which was one of great gravity and far-reaching consequences, and added that we were in complete agreement that there could be no thought of appeasement or of rewarding aggression, whether in the Far East or elsewhere. Lasting peace and the future of the United Nations as an instrument for world peace depended upon strong support for resistance against aggression.

"For our part," we stated, "we are ready, as we have always been, to seek an end to the hostilities by means of negotiation. The same principles of international conduct should be applied in this situation as are applied, in accordance with our obligations under the Charter of the United Nations, to any threat to world peace. Every effort must be made to achieve the purposes of the United Nations in Korea by peaceful means and to find a solution of the Korean problem on the basis of a free and independent Korea. We are confident that the great majority of the United Nations takes the same view. If the Chinese on their side display any evidence of a similar attitude, we are hopeful that the cause

of peace can be upheld. If they do not, then it will be for the peoples of the world, acting through the United Nations, to decide how the principles of the Charter can best be maintained. For our part, we declare in advance our firm resolve to uphold them."

We did not omit from the communiqué that the two governments differed on the question of the Chinese seat in the United Nations. In fact, we noted that we had discussed our difference on this point and were determined that it would not interfere with our united effort in support of our common objectives.

Finally, the communiqué dealt with free world security. We noted that the urgency of building up the strength of the whole free world had only been increased by the events in Korea and that adequate defense forces were essential if war was to be prevented.

We announced the following conclusions:

"1. The military capabilities of the United States and of the United Kingdom should be increased as rapidly as possible.

"2. The two countries should expand the production of arms which can be used by the forces of all the free nations that are joined together in common defense. Together with those other nations the United States and the United Kingdom should continue to work out mutual arrangements by which all will contribute appropriately to the common defense.

"We agreed that as soon as the plan now nearing completion in the North Atlantic Treaty Organization for an effective integrated force for the defense of Europe is approved, a Supreme Commander should be appointed. It is our joint desire that this appointment shall be made soon.

"In addition to these decisions on increasing our military strength, we have agreed that the maintenance of healthy civilian economies is of vital importance to the success of our defense efforts. We agreed that, while defense production must be given the highest practicable priority in the case of raw materials whose supply is inadequate, the essential civilian requirements of the free countries must be met so far as practicable. In order to obtain the necessary materials and to devote them as rapidly as possible to these priority purposes, we have agreed to work closely together for the purpose of increasing supplies of raw materials. We have recognized the necessity of international action to assure that basic raw materials are distributed equitably in accordance with defense and essential civilian needs. We discussed certain immediate problems of raw materials shortages and consideration of these specific matters will continue. We are fully conscious of the increasing necessity of preventing materials and items of strategic importance from flowing into the hands of those who might use them against the free world.

"In the circumstances which confront us throughout the world our nations have no other choice but to devote themselves with all vigor to the building up of our defense forces. We shall do this purely as a defensive measure. We believe that the communist leaders of the Soviet Union and China could, if they chose, modify their conduct in such a way as to make these defense preparations unnecessary. We shall do everything we can, through whatever channels are open to us, to impress this view upon them and to seek a peaceful solution of existing issues.

"The President stated that it was his hope that world conditions would never call for the use of the atomic bomb. The President told the Prime Minister that it was also his desire to keep the Prime Minister at all times informed of developments which might bring about a change in the situation.

"In this critical period, it is a source of satisfaction to us that the views of our governments on basic problems are so similar. We believe that this identity of aims will enable our governments to carry out their determination to work together to strengthen the unity which has already been achieved among free nations and to defend those values which are of fundamental importance to the people we represent."